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THE PENNY MAGAZINE

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ENGLISH ROMANTIC BALLADS.

No. V. LITTLE MUSGRAVE.—THE FRIAR OF ORDERS GRAY.

"Listene these layes, for some there bethe,
Of love which stronger is than dethe;
And some of scorne, and some of guile,
And old adventures that fell while."



[The Friar of Orders Gray and the Pilgrim.]

THE revenge of Lord Barnard, in the ballad of 'Little Musgrave,' exhibits an unlooked-for courtesy, while a fine chivalry is visible in the faithful and desponding love of 'The Friar of Orders Gray.' It is true that these romances are fine specimens of their class, and that in some other ballads the passions of love and revenge are both tragic and terrible; yet bloody though they be, they are warm with life and nature and true feeling, and contain few distempered sensibilities or fantastic emotions. The avenger of wounded honour in 'Little Musgrave' is always manly, and at last relenting, while the modest affection and unblemished chivalry in 'The Friar of Orders Gray' find the way to every heart. The minstrel who composed the former is unknown, though his work has been very popular; it is quoted in 'The Knight of the Burning Pestle,' in 'The Varitie,' and in 'The Wits:' a bad imitation may be found in the Pepys 'Collection,' and a good and true one in Dryden's 'Miscellanies;' the author of the latter was Dr. Percy.

The ballad of 'Little Musgrave' commences in right simplicity. "It fell out," says the minstrel, "on a high holiday, of which there are numbers in the year, that many young men and maidens went to matins and to mass; all, however, did not go with a pure heart.

"Little Musgrave came to the church door,
The priest was at the mass;
But he had more heed of the fair women,
Than he had of our Ladye's grace.

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And some of them were clad in green,
  And others were clad in pall;
And there came in Lord Barnard's ladie,
  The fairest among them all."

It would seem that Little Musgrave and this handsome dame had been acquainted of old, and that her notions of honour were unsettled and loose; she was won without a word.

"She cast an eye on Little Musgrave,
  As bright as the summer sun;
O then bethought him, Little Musgrave,
  This lady's heart I have won.

Quoth she, I have loved thee, Little Musgrave,
  Full long and many a day;
And so have I loved you, ladye fair,
  Yet word durst I never say."

The sacredness of the spot where this conversation took place exercised no power over either the inclination or the tongue of the lady. "I have a handsome bower," she whispered, "at Bucklesford-bury, and when you are there you will not find its lady inhospitable." "I thank you for your kindness, lady," whispered the other; "and be it for my weal or woe, there shall I be to-night." On this they separated.

"All this beheard a little foot-page
  By his lady's coach as he ran;
Quoth he, though I am my lady's page,
  Yet I'm Lord Barnard's man.

My Lord Barnard he shall know of this,
  Although I lose a limb;
And ever whereas the briggs were broke,
  He laid him down to swim."

The page was soon at the castle of his lord. "Arise," he cried, "Lord Barnard, an thou art a man; for this same night Little Musgrave will be with my lady at Bucklesford-bury."

"If it be true, thou little foot-page,
  This tale thou hast told to me,
Then all my lands in Bucklesford-bury
  I freely will give to thee.

But an it be a lie, thou little foot-page,
  This tale thou has told to me,
On the tallest tree in all Bucklesford-bury
  High hanged shalt thou be."

The Baron rose, armed himself, summoned all his merry-men, and mounting his horse, exclaimed to his wondering adherents, "I must be to Bucklesford-bury to-night; God wot, I had never more need!" On their way some of his followers sang and whistled, and some said aloud, "When the horn of Lord Barnard is heard, Little Musgrave will up and begone." Of the coming of the avenger Musgrave seems to have had a sort of presentiment.

"Methinks I hear the throstle-cock,
  Methinks I hear the jay,
Methinks that I hear Lord Barnard's horn;
  I would that I were away.

Lie still, lie still, thou Little Musgrave,
  And keep me from the cold;
For it is but some shepherd's boy
  A-whistling his sheep to the fold."

The lady listened for a moment, and turned upon him reproachfully. "Thy hawk is on the perch, thy horse saddled beside his corn, and I am with thee; and yet thou wouldest begone." Her recklessness contrasts strangely with her lover's fears:—the punishment of both was at hand.

"By this Lord Barnard was come to the door,
  And lighted upon a stone;
And he pulled forth three silver keys,
  And opened the doors each one."

He then entered the chamber of the guilty pair, exclaiming, "How now, then, Little Musgrave, dost thou find my lady's company pleasant?" "That she is sweet," replied the other, "I shall prove to my grief; I would give three hundred pounds to be free on yonder plain." "Arise, arise," cried Lord Barnard impatiently, "arise and dress yourself: it shall never be said that I killed an unarmed man."

"I have two swords in my chamber,
  Full mickle they cost my purse;
And thou shalt have the best of them,
  And I will have the worse.

The first stroke that Little Musgrave struck,
  He hurt Lord Barnard sore;
The next stroke that Lord Barnard struck,
  Little Musgrave never struck more."

It seems that while this combat took place the lady lay still; but she was not an unconcerned spectator.

"With that bespoke the lady fair,
  In the bed whereas she lay;
Although thou art dead, my Little Musgrave,
  Yet for thee will I pray.

And wish well to thy soul will I,
  So long as I have life;
So will I not do for thee, Barnard,
  Though I am thy wedded wife."

These words exasperated her lord to frenzy; he had still his sword in his hand, and with it he struck her a blow which brought, says the minstrel, her life's blood trickling to her knees. This piteous sight moved his heart, and deep remorse succeeded.

"Wo worth, wo worth ye, my merry-men all,
  You never were born for good;
Why did you not offer to stay my hand
  When you saw me wax so wood?

For I have slain the ae fairest knight
  That ever rode on a steed;
So have I slain the fairest ladye
  That ever wore woman's weed."

The reproach of Lord Barnard was not without reason. His merry-men, as we have seen, had sung and whistled, and even shouted as they approached Bucklesford-bury, with the evident intention of warning their lady of her husband's coming; and that they stood idly by and allowed him in a moment of just indignation to deprive her, however wanton and shameless, of life, must surprise every one as much as it incensed their lord. When he saw no better might be, Lord Barnard gave directions for the immediate burial of the unfortunate pair.

"A grave, a grave, Lord Barnard cried,
  To put these lovers in;
But lay my ladye o' the upper hand,
  For she comes o' the better kin."

From this domestic tragedy we gladly turn to 'The Friar of Orders Gray,' a ballad in which the strain is more polished and the termination happier. Percy was laughed at by the wits and scholars of London for his old-ballad enthusiasm; and Johnson amused his friends, and perhaps gratified himself, with burlesque imitations of the bishop's ballads. But the cold, stately, and polished style of the poetry which the great critic loved, gave way, almost before his eyes were shut, to the style which he lampooned and mocked; nature asserted her insulted dignity; verse threw off the load of affectation and bombast with which the merely learned had loaded it, and this beneficial, and, we hope, lasting change, has been imputed chiefly to the wholesome influence of Percy's 'Reliques of Ancient English Poetry.'

We have said that 'The Friar of Orders Gray' owes some of its charms to the ballad of 'The Gentle Herdsman;' this latter strain commences by a pilgrim inquiring the way to the shrine of Our Lady of Walsingham: "The way," replied the Gentle Herdsman, to whom the words were spoken, "is hard to win, for the paths are crooked, and the distance great." "Were the distance doubled thrice, and the ways ever so dangerous," answered the Pilgrim, "it would not be enough for my offence, it is so grievous." "Thou art young, and thy face is fair to look on," said the Herdsman; "surely time hath not yet allowed thee leisure to commit a sin at all heinous?" "I am not what I seem," replied the Pilgrim; "I am a woman; I scorned the love of the

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gentlest and worthiest youth of the land; he pined and died for love of me. I have put on this pilgrim's weed; I fast and I pray, and when I have relieved my burthened heart at the shrine of Our Lady, I will seek out some lonesome place and die for my love, since my love died for me. Now, Gentle Herdsman, ask no more, but show me the way to Walsingham." "Go thy ways," replied the other; "and, may God go with thee: turn down that dale, and take the right-hand path. So fare thee well, fair Pilgrim." The ballad of 'Percy' may be regarded as the second part of 'The Gentle Herdsman.' The fair mourner, we may imagine, when nigh the shrine, hears that her lover is alive; but we must permit the poet to tell his own story.

"It was a Friar of Orders gray
Walked forth to tell his beads;
And he met with a lady fair,
Clad in a pilgrim's weeds.

Now, Christ thee save, thou reverend friar,
I pray thee tell to me,
If ever at yon holy shrine
My true love thou did'st see?

And how should I know your true love,
From many another one?
O by his cockle-hat and staff,
And by his sandal shoon."

There were other marks, however, by which the lady remembered her true love; he was handsome and young, with curling locks of a flaxen colour, and eyes bright and blue. The friar replied—

"O lady, he is dead and gone!
Lady, he is dead and gone!
And at his head a grass-green turf,
And at his feet a stone.

Within these holy cloisters long
He languished and he died,
Lamenting of a lady's love,
And plaining of her pride.

There bore him barefaced on his bier,
Six proper youths and tall,
And many a tear bedewed his grave
Within yon kirk-yard wall."

This circumstantial detail about death and burial seemed almost too much for the fair inquirer. She broke out—

"And art thou dead, thou gentle youth,
And art thou dead and gone;
And did'st thou die for love of me!
Break, cruel heart of stone.

O weep not, lady, weep not so,
Some ghostly comfort seek;
Let not vain sorrow rive thy heart,
No tears bedew thy cheek.

O do not, do not, holy friar,
My sorrow so reprove,
For I have lost the sweetest youth
That e'er won lady's love."

The friar regarded her with eyes which witnessed for the emotions with which he heard these mournful confessions; and when she proceeded to assure him that as she had only desired to live for the sake of her lover, so now for him she wished to die,—the friar tried to soothe her with sentiments conveyed in simple and affecting imagery.

"Weep no more, lady, weep no more,
Thy sorrow is in vain,
For violets pluck'd the sweetest showers
Will ne'er make grow again.

Our joys, as winged dreams, do fly;
Why then should sorrow last?
Since grief but aggravates thy loss,
Grieve not for what is past.

"Tell it not to me, holy friar," said the lady, "that grief but aggravates my loss; since one I so dearly loved died for my sake, is it not meet that he should be mourned for in tears?"

"And will he ne'er come again.
Will he ne'er come again;
Ah! no, he's dead and laid in his grave,
For ever to remain.

His cheek was ruddier than the rose,
The comeliest youth was he!
But he is dead and laid in his grave,
Alas! and woe is me!"

The friar on this, changed his tone, and strove to persuade the fair mourner that no reliance could be placed in anything of this world, and that the vows of man were as fickle as the wind—as changing and unsteady.

"Sigh no more, lady, sigh no more,
Men were deceivers ever;
One foot on sea and one on land,
To one thing constant never.

Hadst thou been fond, he had been false,
And left thee sad and heavy;
For young men ay were fickle found
Since summer trees were leafy."

"I pray thee, friar," said the young lady, "speak not so injuriously of my true love; he had the truest of all hearts; he was all truth." She then renewed her lamentations.

"And art thou dead, thou much lov'd youth,
And did'st thou die for me;
Then farewell home; for evermore
A pilgrim will I be.

But first upon my true-love's grave
My weary limbs I'll lay,
And thrice I'll kiss the grass-green turf
That wraps his breathless clay."

"Stay awhile, young lady," thus remonstrated the friar; "remain under the shade of the cloister-walls; hear ye not how sharply the cold wind comes through the hawthorn hedge; and feel ye not the rain beginning to fall?"

"O stay me not, thou holy friar,
O stay me not, I pray;
No drizzly rain that falls on me
Can wash my fault away."

The friar felt now that he had dissembled long enough; he laid his hand on the lady's arm, staying her in her walk to the churchyard, and spoke words of unlooked for consolation.

"Yet stay, fair lady, turn again,
And dry these pearly tears;
For see, beneath this gown of gray
Thy own true love appears."

The surprise and rapture of the lady, with the unhooding of the friar, is a subject worthy the attention of a first-rate painter; inferior ones have, if we remember rightly, tried their brushes upon it, without seizing much of the sentiment or the national air of the scene. The friar proceeds to assign reasons for the religious habit which he wears, and for preferring a sanctified life within holy walls, to the occupation of the grave in the churchyard, with a turf at his head and a stone at his feet.

"Here forced by grief and hopeless love,
These holy weeds I sought;
And here, amid these lonely walls,
To end my days I thought.

But haply, for my year of grace
Is not yet pass'd away,
Might I still hope to win thy love,
No longer would I stay."

The young lady's heart was too full to indulge any longer in dissembling; she heard with pleasure of the unexpired year of her lover's noviciate, and resolved to bind him with vows of a tenderer kind than those required for the cloister.

"Now, farewell grief, and welcome joy
Once more unto my heart;
For since I've found thee, lovely youth,
We never more shall part."

This gentle and happy ending is in the true spirit of chivalry and love, though much unlike the stern and tragic conclusions in the general run of ballads.

A. C.

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CHRISTMAS GAMES IN THE OLDEN TIME.



[Bringing in the Boar's Head.—From a Drawing by W. R. Buss, Esq.]

FEW relics of the olden time are recurred to with more zest by our fathers than the goodly frolics and mirthful games which were wont to usher in the merry days of Christmas. We may still perceive in some parts of the country the lingering remains of the rough sports which were wont in earlier times to enliven the comfortless period of the year in which the anniversary of the great event occurs, in whose honour the Christmas festivals were instituted.

Christmas parties and merry-makings are still formed to render the season of dark December more cheerful and enlivening. The elders sit over their punch and smile at the adventures of their youthful days—the young people dance on the sanded floor; John cudgels his brains for some sly trick to lead the blooming Mary, without her being aware of his intention, under the bunch of mistletoe hanging from the ceiling; and Mary at last runs, quite by accident, to the very place he wishes, when he bounces after her, and announces her capture by a smacking report heard at the farthest corner of the kitchen; and "snap-dragon," or "hunt the slipper," or "hoodman-blind," or the merry song and hearty laugh, puts everyone in good humour with all, and with everything.

The children, sitting round the blazing hearth, still listen to the stories of the village patriarch, who, honoured with the best seat in the chimney-corner, descants on the "good old times," when he and two or three of the older guests (who smile and sigh as they recall the time) were boys, scarcely so tall as the stile at the end of the lane; when oxen were roasted whole, and the whole village was alive with the preparations and enjoyment of "real good English games;" when the men were stronger, and the girls—"but, no, *they* were *not* prettier!" nay, he looks round and says he almost thinks the girls are prettier now than they were then—"though there was Margery, the miller's daughter—he remembered her, and certainly, she was *the* beauty!"

But even in the youthful days of a centenarian of the present age, the sports of Christmas were very different to what they had been a hundred years or so before. It was in the days of "good Queen Bess," or in the more spirit-stirring times that preceded her reign, that the festival of Christmas was celebrated with the greatest vigour, when the boar's head was brought to table with trumpets sounding, drums beating, and the whole company singing its praises; when the ale flowed unceasingly, the fire blazed and crackled with the yule-log, when the "Lord of Misrule" put in practice all the arts he was master of to make the peasantry joyful with boisterous merriment; when the games and festivity lasted for a month, and rendered every one happy for a year.

Although most people are aware of the general passion for feasts and amusements which distinguishes the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, but few persons are aware of the character of the sports which were then so popular. We shall now endeavour to convey some idea of the amusements incidental to the season which were then in high repute. In England we find, in the earliest accounts we have of the state of the island, that the Druids celebrated during the winter solstice the rites in honour of Thor, one of the Scandinavian deities; and some few of the customs by which the festivities of Christmas were characterized in later times may be traced to the established ceremonies in honour of that heathen deity. Thus the practice of adorning the house with mistletoe has been derived from the use of that plant in the druidical ceremonies; and other customs which obtained in this country but a few years since are referable to the same origin.

Among the many customs which prevailed at the period of Christmas in the days of Elizabeth, the investiture of a person with the power and privileges of assembling a number of persons and teaching them tricks, tumbling, and fantastic performances for the purpose of amusing the peasantry, and indeed the higher classes, is one of the most remarkable. This jocular personage was styled the "Lord of Misrule," or "Abbot of Unreason;" and by custom of long continuance, connived at by the authorities of Church and State, he was permitted to lead the vulgar who desired to enlist under his banner whithersoever he pleased in search of fun and ludicrous adventures. Even at Court and at the houses of the principal

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nobility this officer was appointed to superintend and direct the Christmas revellings, and his reign of folly generally lasted a month or more, commencing early in the month of December, and not terminating until the "morrow after the Feast of the Purification," on the 2nd of February. These worthies were also appointed in solemn conclave by the principal inhabitants of a village or parish, to represent the wit and folly of the place. But it is probable that the Lords of Misrule appointed by parishes and by the less wealthy personages were more confined in their powers than those who were appointed and protected by the more powerful noblemen or by the monarch.

The puritanical Stubbs, in his 'Anatomie of Abuses,' descants with much fervour on the proceedings of this "heathen companie." He is describing a parish festivity. "First of all the wilde heades of the parish, flocking togither, chuse them a graunde captaine of *mischiefe*, whom they ennoble with the title of *Lord of Misrule*; and him they crown with great solemnity, and adopt for their king. This *king annoynted* chooseth forth twentie, fourty, threescore, or an hundred lustie guttes, like to himself, to waite upon his lordly majesty and to guard his noble person. Then every one of these men he inv esteth with his liveries of greene, yellow, or some other light wanton colour, and, as though they were not gawdie ynouf, they bedecke themselves with scarffes, ribbons, and laces, hanged all over with gold ringes, pretious stones, and other jewels. This done they tie about either legge twentie or fourtie belles, with riche handkerchiefs in their handes, and sometimes laide across over their shoulders and neckes, borrowed for the most part of their prettier Mopsies and loving Bessies. Thus, all things set in order, then have they their *hobby-horses*, their *dragons*, and other antiques, together with their pipers and thundring drummers, to strike up the devil's daunce withal. Then march this heathen companie towards the church, their pypers pyping, their drummers thundring, their stumpies dauncing, their belles jyngling, their handkerchiefs fluttering about their heads like madmen, their hobbie-horses and other monsters skirmishing amongst the throng: and in this sorte they go to the church, though the minister be at prayer or preaching, dauncing and singing like devils incarnate, with such a confused noise that no man can heare his own voyce. Then the foolish people they looke, they stare, they laugh, they fleere, and mount upon the formes and pewes to see these goodly pageants solemnized."

The irascible Mr. Stubbs goes on to declaim against the practice of rewarding these mummers, with so much feeling, that we should suppose he had himself been applied to, and perchance roughly handled on his refusal to sanction such "terrestrial furies."

"Then, for the further innobling of this honourable *lurdane*, lord I should say, they have certaine papers wherein is painted some babeterie (childish, trifling nonsense), or other of imagerie worke, and these they call my *Lord of Misrule's*, badges or cognizances. These they give to every one that will give them money to maintain them in their heathenish devilrie (How many worthy antiquaries are there who would now empty their purses to possess such a relic of olden times!); and who will not show himself buxome to them and give them money, they shall be mocked and flanted shamefully; yea, and many times carried upon a cowlstaffe, and dived over heade and eares in water, or otherwise most horribly abused. And so besotted are some that they not only give them money, but weare their badges or cognizances in their caps or hats openly. Another sort of fantasticall fooles bring to these *helhounds*, the Lord of Misrule and his 'complices, some bread, some good ale, some new cheese, some old cheese, some custardes, some cracknels, some cakes, some flauns, some tartes, some creame, some meat, some one thing, some another."

Verily, Master Stubbs was a most unbending monitor and well fitted for the office he undertook, of satirizing the foibles and follies of his countrymen. His feelings and opinions were assimilated to the ridiculous customs which he took upon himself so seriously to condemn. We cannot choose but laugh at his solemn vituperations; yet as a book of reference for any one requiring a few quaint and abusive epithets, no work may be consulted with more advantage than Stubbs's 'Anatomie of Abuses.'



[Bringing in the Yule-log.—From a Drawing by W. R. Buss, Esq.]

We have no doubt that an assemblage of persons under so little control as that of the "Lord of Misrule" seldom separated without some rough or dangerous mischief having been perpetrated. Yet the institution in itself was innocent enough, and calculated to lighten the severities to which the rude peasantry were exposed at this

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inclement season; and had it been under proper superintendence and control, such a system for the exercise of joyful amusements might be encouraged without ill effects occurring to the people from its existence. With respect to the appearance and proceedings of this motley assemblage, Sir W. Scott has given a very lively and amusing description.*

"The appearance of the crowd was grotesque in the extreme. It was composed of men, women, and children, ludicrously disguised in various habits, and presenting groups equally diversified and ludicrous. Here one fellow, with a horse's head painted before him, and a tail behind, and the whole covered with a long foot-cloth, which was supposed to hide the body of the animal, ambled, caracoled, pranced, and plunged, as he performed the celebrated part of the hobby-horse, so often alluded to in our ancient drama; and which still flourishes on the stage in the battle that concludes Bayes's tragedy. To rival the address and agility displayed by this character, another personage advanced, in the more formidable character of a huge dragon, with gilded wings, open jaws, and a scarlet tongue, cloven at the end, which made various efforts to overtake and devour a lad, dressed as the lovely Sabræa, daughter of the king of Egypt, who fled before him; while a martial St. George, grotesquely armed with a goblet for a helmet, and a spit for a lance, ever and anon interfered, and compelled the monster to relinquish his prey. A bear, a wolf, and one or two other wild animals, played their parts with the discretion of Snug the joiner; for the decided preference which they gave to the use of their hind legs was sufficient, without any formal annunciation, to assure the most timorous spectators that they had to do with habitual bipeds. There was a group of outlaws with Robin Hood and Little John at their head—the best representation exhibited at the time; and no great wonder, since most of the actors were, by profession, the banished men and thieves whom they represented. Other masqueraders there were, of a less marked description. Men were disguised as women, and women as men—children wore the dress of aged people, and tottered with crutch-sticks in their hands, furred-gowns on their little backs, and caps on their round heads—while grandsires assumed the infantine tone as well as the dress of children. Besides these many had their faces painted, and wore their shirts over the rest of their dress; while coloured pasteboards and ribands furnished out decorations for others. Those who wanted all these properties blacked their faces and turned their jackets inside out; and thus the transmutation of the whole assembly into a set of mad grotesque mummers was at once completed."

Mummings and masqueradings were from a very early period great favourites with the English people. Kings and princes, the clergy, the gravest as well as the most lively, were equally delighted with these amusements. We find frequent entries in the inventories of the fifteenth century, and even earlier, of sums paid for suits of buckram and vizors to represent animals, angels, devils, &c., according to the fancy of the wearers. At periods of festivity, especially at Christmas, the practice of dressing-up and enacting mumming pageants prevailed to a great extent throughout the country, every one who could afford such an entertainment hiring a troop of professional mummers to entertain his friends; and even when such an expense could not be supported, the parties frequently blackened their faces and otherwise disguised themselves, and performed various frolicsome games for the amusement of their friends at Christmas, or, going through the village from house to house, made themselves merry at the expense of their neighbours. Then there were many ancient customs, the origin of most of which is involved in great obscurity, with which the Christmas party was wont to be amused. One of these, always observed with great pomp, was that of placing a boar's head on the great hall table, when a large party of relatives and friends were assembled at their Christmas dinner. We have many accounts of the manner in which this jovial ceremony was performed; and a lively representation of such a scene is given in the engraving at the head of this article. England has ever been celebrated for its substantial dinners, and many of its most curious ceremonies or pompous exhibitions are connected with her feasts and entertainments. The abundance of substantial viands with which the tables at the great festive exhibitions of the fifteenth century were covered may be conceived from the following account of the installation-feast of George Neville, the brother of the Earl of Warwick, when he was inducted into the Archbishopric of York:—"A hundred and four oxen and six wild bulls, a thousand sheep, three hundred and four calves, as many swine, two thousand pigs, five hundred stags, bucks, and roes, and two hundred and four kids, formed the solid basis of the entertainment. Of fowls, large and small, rare and common, wild and tame, there were twenty-two thousand five hundred and twelve. These were aided by mountains of fish, pasties, tarts, custards, and jellies; and three hundred quarters of wheat formed the vegetable portion of the banquet. The quantity of liquids corresponded to that of the solids, consisting of three hundred tuns of ale, a hundred tuns of wine, and a pipe of hippocras. Besides which there were twelve porpoises and seals."*

From the time of the Saxons, whose wealth consisted principally in large herds of swine, the boar has been held in particular esteem by the English; and on Christmas-day it was always the first dish brought on table. Placed in a capacious dish and ornamented with sprigs of bay and rosemary, the huge head was borne in by the sewer, preceded by trumpeters, fifers, and drummers, who made the old hall echo with their minstrelsy, while the attendants shouted and huzzaed, and a person specially appointed for the occasion proceeded to chant a collection of rude rhymes in praise of the favourite dish, in which he was supported by the guests, who, joining in the choruses, shouted at the top of their voices, until, from exhaustion, they were compelled to recruit their voices from the flowing tankards of brown ale.

One of these old songs has been preserved in a curious book printed by Wynkyn de Worde, in 1521, entitled 'Christmasse Carolles.'

"A CAROL:—'BRYNGING IN THE BOAR'S HEAD.'

"*Caput Apri defero*
Reddens laudes Domino."

"The Bore's head in hande bring I,
With garlands gay and rosemary,
I pray you all synge merily,
Qui estis in convivio.

The Bore's head, I understande,
Is the chiefe service in the lande.
Loke wherever it be fande,
Servite cum Cantico.

Be gladde, lords, both mon and lasse,
For this hath ordayned our stewarde
To chere you all this Christmasse,
The Bore's head with mustarde."

Sir W. Scott has elegantly alluded to the custom in the following lines on Christmas festivities:—

"The fire, with well-dried logs supply'd,
Went roaring up the chimney wide;
The huge hall-table's oaken face,
Scrubb'd till it shone, the day to grace,
Bore then upon its massive board
No mark to part the squire and lord.
Then was brought in the lusty brawn,
By old blue-coated serving-man;
Then the grim boar's head frowned on high,
Crested with bays and rosemary.

* See 'The Abbot,' vol. i., chap. xv.

* 'Pictorial History of England,' ii., 253.

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Well can the green-garb'd ranger tell,
How, when, and where the monster fell;
What dogs before his death he tore,
And all the baiting of the boar;
While round the merry wassel-bowl,
Garnished with ribbons, blithe did trowl."

Then there was another curious ceremony, of which we give a pictorial representation, viz. that of bringing in the great Yule or Christmas Clog, or Block, which, placed on the massive "dogs," or upright supports on either side the hearth, was destined to warm and illumine the great hall or dining-apartment. The Yule Clog (the word Yule, by which Christmas was often designated, is supposed to be derived from *giul*, the name by which the Feast of Thor at this time of the year was known to the Saxons, who so called it from *iol*, or *ol*, signifying *ale*)—the Yule Log was selected from one of the largest trees in the park of the proprietor whose house was to be enlivened by its consumption, and, accompanied by a number of dependants bearing large candles, it was dragged with much state and rejoicing on Christmas-eve into the apartment in which it was to burned. The attendant customs of drinking ale and celebrating the occasion with music may be gathered from the following carol, which occurs in Herrick's 'Hesperides:'—

"CEREMONIES FOR CHRISTMASSE.

"Come, bring with a noise,
My merrie, merrie boys,
The Christmasse log to the firing;
While my good dame, she
Bids ye all be free,
And drink to your heart's desiring.

With the last year's brand*
Light the new block, and
For good successe in his spending,
On your psaltries play,
That sweet luck may
Come while the log is a-teending.

Drink now the strong beere,
Cut the white loafe here,
The while the meat is a shredding;
For the rare mince-pie,
And the plums stand by,
To fill the paste that's a-kneading."

We might describe many other customs which enlivened the naturally gloomy season of Christmas in the olden time, and pursue the subject until lost in the gloom of antiquity, were we sure that our readers would follow us with as much alacrity as we ourselves should feel in the pursuit. We might show how little images of the Virgin Mary and Infant Christ, made of paste, and called the *Yule Dough*, or *Dow*, were formerly carried about the towns, and presented by the bakers to their customers; how the minstrels made their progress through the village singing their carols and praying for the health and success of the inhabitants; how the wassail-bowl, decorated with ribands, was paraded from door to door, accompanied by the most beautiful damsels, singing with dulcet voices verses composed for the occasion; and how everyone, from the highest to the lowest, greeted each other with presents and good wishes. These, and many more matters connected with the subject, might we descant upon, did we not deem our readers to be somewhat more impatient than we, in the delight of our antiquarian studies, profess to be. We shall not therefore pursue the subject further at present.

* Alluding to the custom of lighting a brand on Candlemass-day (February 2nd), which, when quenched at sun-set, was preserved until the succeeding Christmas-day.

QUACKS AND QUACK MEDICINES.

From the 'Working Man's Companion' for 1839.]

[Continued from No. 430.]

About the time that St. John Long and his liniment disappeared, another practitioner of equal zeal and ability came forward to supply his place; this was Mr. Morison, the pill-maker. Before we say anything concerning the effect of these pills, it will be right to premise a word upon their composition. According to the account of Mr. West, of Leeds, they consist of aloes, colocynth, gamboge, cream of tartar, and ginger; the chief difference between No. 1 and No. 2 being that the latter contain three times as much gamboge as the former. According to the analysis of another chemist, at a later period, No. 1 consisted of cream of tartar and aloes, and another substance, the nature of which he had not time to ascertain: he at first thought it was colocynth. No. 2 consisted of aloes, gamboge, cream of tartar, and another substance, which he had not time to make out: his assistant said that both contained a little assafœtida.

Now, as corrosive liniments are used in regular practice, so also are active purgatives: the great difference between the sober use of these remedies in skilful hands, and the furious employment by Long and Morison, being, that the quacks seemed quite ignorant of the danger attending them when used too freely. This is the charitable construction we put upon their conduct; as we scarcely venture to suppose that any human being, conscious of the risk of irritative fever from corrosive liniments, or of inflammation of the stomach and bowels from violent purgatives, would have used them like these notorious practitioners.

Of the ingredients above mentioned, the most active are colocynth and gamboge. How are these drugs administered in regular practice? The compound extract of colocynth of the London Pharmacopœia is formed into pills which are often prescribed; but far from being given in unlimited quantities, the common dose is ten grains, and it is very unusual to go beyond twenty. The last quantity contains about four grains and two-thirds of colocynth. Gamboge, like colocynth, is called a *drastic* purgative—that is to say, one which operates with violence. The compound gamboge pills of the London Pharmacopœia contain one-fifth part of gamboge, and, as their dose is from ten to twenty grains, the quantity of gamboge swallowed will be from two to four grains: these pills are not very often prescribed. As for saying of these or other pills containing colocynth or gamboge, that they may be taken in unlimited quantities, if the theory were broached by a real practitioner of physic, we should set it down to simple madness; when uttered by an advertiser, we charitably attribute it to the most profound ignorance.

Aloes are much milder than colocynth and gamboge, but must be taken with moderation. When administered too frequently, or injudiciously, they are thought to bring on the piles in some habits. Cream of tartar may be taken in a far larger dose than the other three aperients. As much as an ounce may be taken in the course of a day without damage; but it would not be easy to swallow this in a state of solution, as it would require a gallon of water to dissolve it. Yet there is a singular case, which tends to show that even this mild remedy cannot be safely taken in immoderate doses.* A man, named Hudson, who was employed in Morison's pill-manufactory, having got intoxicated on Monday, October 9th, 1837, endeavoured to cool his stomach the next day by swallowing immense quantities of cream of tartar. One of Morison's men said he was sure that Hudson had swallowed nearly a quarter of a pound at once, and that during the day he was continually putting small lumps into his mouth.

When Hudson returned home on the Tuesday evening, he was extremely weak and scarcely able to walk. He stated that he had at least twenty-five motions, attended with constant vomiting. The next day he was seen by a medical practitioner, who found that the purging and vomiting had gone on; the fluid brought up was of

* 'Medical Gazette,' vol. xxi., p. 177.

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blackish-green colour. He said that he had taken four or five table-spoonfuls of cream of tartar, "which is a principal ingredient in Morison's cooling powders." He died on the Thursday, and, on examination of the body, the stomach and bowels were found to be very much inflamed.

With regard to the other two substances said to be found in the pills, namely, assafœtida and ginger, we will only observe, that both are heating substances, and must be given in very moderate doses; ten or twelve grains of either being sufficient for any reasonable purpose.

Having now seen what are the component parts of these pills, and in what quantities the ingredients would be administered by skilful persons, let us now learn what are their effects when recklessly given in immense doses by the wholly ignorant.

In July, 1834, an innkeeper named George Webb, was tried at the York assizes for the manslaughter of Richard Robinson, to whom he had given large quantities of gamboge, aloes, colocynth, and other drugs. The deceased was labouring under the confluent smallpox, and the prisoner undertook to treat him, which he did by giving him as much as ten, fifteen, or twenty of Morison's pills several times a-day. The prisoner, who was a dealer in the pills, insisted that the patient was doing well; but as he continued to grow worse, medical aid was called in, but only two hours before his death. On dissection the stomach and bowels were found to be inflamed; the former, indeed, to such an extreme degree, that the upper portion was approaching to gangrene. The son of Morison, and one Moat, a partner in the pill business, were examined, and confessed that the pills contained gamboge. Webb was found guilty, and sentenced to six months' imprisonment.

This prisoner was evidently treated with much greater severity than Sir John Long; for while the latter, for putting two healthy people to death, was punished, on one occasion, with a trifling fine, and on the other was let off scot-free, the innkeeper-druggist was imprisoned for merely helping his patient out of the world and destroying his chance of recovery; confluent smallpox being of itself a very fatal disease, without the aid of so much gamboge and colocynth. About the same time another case occurred in Dublin, where the pills again played their part.

A gentleman, aged about thirty, having caught cold, sent for Mr. Coppin, a medical practitioner, and told him he had taken ten of Morison's pills. Mr. Coppin prescribed for him, and directed him to take no more of the pills. On the next day he was better; on the following one he confessed that he had again taken five more of the pills. He grew worse, dismissed his medical attendant, and sent for the pill-agent, who told him that the distressing stomach-symptoms, under which he laboured, were the proper effects of the remedy; and concluded by giving him ten more pills. In the course of the day, the patient, perhaps in a sort of desperation, took thirty-one of the pills, and got worse and worse. The next day he was seen by Mr. Coppin and Drs. Stokes and Labatt, but his case was now hopeless. The abdomen was burning hot. The arteries at the groin pulsated strongly, and pressure on the pit of the stomach produced exquisite pain. He died the same evening. On dissection, the stomach and bowels showed marks of the most acute inflammation.

The learned editor of the 'Medical Gazette,' after narrating this case, observes, "There ought to have been a coroner's inquest on this case. It was either a manslaughter or a suicide: at all events the unfortunate patient certainly did not die a natural death."*

One of the dangers attending these pills, no doubt, depends on the carelessness with which they are mixed; but, even when this is properly attended to, it would seem that the No. 2 pills contain a grain and a half of gamboge each, so that the victim who is made to swallow forty pills swallows sixty grains of gamboge—that is to say, about twenty times as much as a fair dose—besides other drugs. Instead of wondering that the bowels of so many patients inflame under this rough usage, the wonder is that any escape!

In August, 1834, an inquest was held at Pershore, on the body of Rebecca Cross, aged 15. She had taken the never-failing remedy, and died accordingly. A great part of the bowels was ulcerated through, and mortification had taken place to a great extent. The verdict of the jury was, that "Rebecca Cross died from mortification of the bowels, occasioned by taking two pills, called Morison's pills."

Perhaps these two pills were of the badly made ones, and consisted chiefly of gamboge and colocynth.

In November, 1835, an inquest was held on the body of Mrs. Sarah Porter, aged 35, of Clarence Gardens, Regent's-park. She had been advised by a neighbour to take Morison's pills, and did so, in doses of fourteen and sixteen at a time. It appeared that her death was caused by inflammation of the bowels, and the jury returned their verdict accordingly.

An inquest was held at Birmingham, on the 5th of January, 1836, on the body of a child aged sixteen months, who died of ulceration of the stomach and intestines, after having had several of Morison's pills administered to her by her father.

In February, 1836, a coroner's inquest was held at Radcliff, on the body of Captain Mackenzie, aged 32, who died in consequence of taking Morison's pills. The jury returned a verdict of manslaughter against one Salmon, who administered them. His trial came on in April, when the prisoner was found guilty and sentenced to pay a fine of 200*l*. Considering the brisk trade which the pill-mongers were then driving, this fine was a very trifling punishment. Even in the extraordinary annals of quackery it would be difficult to find an instance in which the boldness of ignorance was carried farther than in this case. The deceased, a stout, healthy man, was attacked with rheumatism in the knee, and having fallen into the clutches of Salmon, the hygeist, was reduced to a miserable state in about a week. On the prisoner calling, Mrs. Mackenzie said that her husband was getting very thin, and he replied, "I must take off the flesh before I can raise him up." He added, that the deceased would rise up like a new man; and she said, she should like to see him rise up the man he was before. He ordered her to give him 35 pills at three o'clock that day. She told him that her husband could not take them, as he was continually throwing them up, and throwing up blood also. He repeated his orders, and said he would have them sent. A Miss Lane, a sort of sub-agent, called about three o'clock, and brought a box of pills, which she said were Morison's, and also a box of powders, for both of which Mrs. Mackenzie paid 13*s*. 4*d*. Some brandy and water was offered to the deceased, but he could not take it. Salmon called next day about 10, and had two powders (about two table-spoonfuls) in paper. He mixed them in some water; one was darker than the other. Mrs. Mackenzie asked him what it was, and he said it was pills pounded. He desired her to raise up her husband, which she did; he was then very weak, and could hardly move. (Here the witness became much affected.) The prisoner then put the cup to the mouth of the deceased, and he swallowed the contents.

[To be continued.]

* Vol. xiv., p. 615.

*** The Office of the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge is at 59, Lincoln's Inn Fields.

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THE PENNY MAGAZINE

OF THE

Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge.

432.] PUBLISHED EVERY SATURDAY. [DECEMBER 29, 1838.

LE COMTE ALEXANDRE-LOUIS-JOSEPH DE LABORDE.



[Portrait of Count Alexandre de Laborde in his travelling Costume. (Constantinople.)]

WE have lately given some engravings from a very beautiful work now in course of publication at Paris (see Nos. 420, 424, &c.), entitled 'Voyage en Orient,' by M. Léon de Laborde. From the same work we now copy characteristic portraits of the author and of his father (who accompanied him in his journey) in the costume they wore when on their travels in the East.* Laborde is a name celebrated in French literature, and well known throughout Europe. The family have

* See the above, and in p. 500.

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also rendered themselves conspicuous in the political annals of their country. Alexandre-Louis-Joseph de Laborde was born at Paris on the 15th of September, 1774, and was educated at Juilly. He was intended by his father (Jean-Joseph de Laborde, celebrated for the talent with which he conducted the financial affairs of his country, and for his love of the fine arts) for the navy, but the approach of the French Revolution changed his intended projects, and determined him to send his son to Austria. Accordingly the young Laborde proceeded to the Austrian court with a simple letter of introduction from his father to the emperor. He was very well received, and appointed at once sub-lieutenant and aide-de-camp to General Wenceslaus-Colloredo; and in a short time promoted to the rank of captain in the dragoons of Kinsky, in which capacity he acted in five campaigns, during which he was twice wounded, and was mentioned with honour in the 'Annals of the Austrian Army,' published under the direction of the government. He remained in Austria nine years, when at length the horrors of the French Revolution having abated, he returned to his native country shortly after the treaty of Campo-Formio. Having a love for travelling, he visited England, Holland, Italy, and Spain, in which last country he remained some time inspecting all that was curious or interesting in its customs, natural objects, or historical remains. On his return to France he gave to the world the result of his investigations in that interesting kingdom, of which so little was known at that period. The 'Voyage pittoresque et historique de l'Espagne,' in 4 vols. folio, was quickly followed by the 'Itineraire de l'Espagne,' an interesting and learned work in 5 vols., which has gone through many editions and been translated into several languages. It has been stated on good authority that the expenses incurred in his Spanish travels, and in the preparatives to these two works, could not have been less than 20,000*l.* sterling,

Shortly after the appearance of these works he published a volume on the Greek and Etruscan Vases in the collection of Count de Lamberg, one of the most magnificent books on ancient art, both in matter, typography, and pictorial embellishment, which has ever proceeded from the press. This was followed by other works on different subjects, evincing a fine taste and no ordinary powers of mind. His talents were acknowledged by the critics of the literary world, by whom he was elected a member of the French Institute (an institution corresponding to our Royal Society). He was greatly distinguished by the emperor, who nominated him "Maître des Requêtes" to the Council of State, President of the directors for the liquidation of the debts of the "grande-armée," and Director of the public works of Paris. In this last capacity he commenced the publication, in 1812, of a 'Collection of Projects for works of public utility to be constructed at Paris,' in which he displayed such taste and talents for the subject, that it has become a standard book of reference for architects and others engaged in similar important undertakings. In 1814 he made another visit to England for the purpose of observing our educational establishments and institutions for the improvement of the people. On his return he endeavoured to introduce many of our ameliorating institutions into his own country, and succeeded to a considerable extent, especially with reference to the systems of instruction pursued by Bell and Lancaster.

M. de Laborde was elected, in 1822, to the Chamber of Deputies by the department of the Seine, and his speeches in the tribune have been characterized by much energy and eloquence.

His son, Léon de Laborde, has inherited his father's talents and love for the fine arts, and with them his passion for travel. At an early age he evinced a desire to visit foreign countries, a desire he soon found himself enabled to gratify, and for which an extensive course of reading had admirably prepared him. After making the tour of various European kingdoms, he bent his steps eastward, and visited the Turkish possessions in Asia Minor and Africa. In these travels he was accompanied by his father, and they adopted the costume of native persons of high rank. As they journeyed through Asia Minor and Syria attended by a numerous escort, the elder Laborde reclining on a "tahtaravan," or covered litter, carried by mules, and Léon mounted on a superb Arabian courser, they were treated with the greatest respect and attention by the inhabitants, who regarded them as a party attending a new pacha on the road to his seat of government. By adopting the costume and manners of persons of high rank in the country, they were enabled to obtain more correct information with respect to the various objects of interest they met with on the road than would have been possible had they journeyed as foreigners, or as an inferior class of natives. The dresses they assumed are represented in the engravings, the portrait of Alexandre de Laborde having been taken at Constantinople; that of his son in Caramania. After having visited all Asia Minor, they arrived at Cairo on their way to the famous ruins of Petra; but Count Alexandre having found the effects of the climate injurious to his health, and his presence being required at Paris on important public business, he was compelled to return.

In Cairo Léon de Laborde remained a year, studying the Arabic language and arranging all the information he could procure with respect to his proposed journey in Arabia Petræa, whither he at length proceeded, accompanied by M. Linant; and in 1830 he published an account of his travels in that remarkable portion of the globe, giving a most exact survey of a tract of country full of interesting reminiscences. He is now occupied with the 'Voyage en Orient,' which will comprise nearly four hundred drawings of the sites of ancient towns, &c. remarkable for their picturesque or historical interest, and of the costume, zoology, &c. of Asia Minor and Syria.

QUACKS AND QUACK MEDICINES.

[From the 'Working-Man's Companion' for 1839.]

[Concluded from No. 431.]

In August, 1836, a woman, named Mary Rebecca Russell, died at Hull, from taking Morison's pills, and a verdict of Manslaughter was returned by the coroner's inquest against Thomas La Mott, the man who administered them. He was brought to trial at the following spring assizes at York, and being found guilty, was sentenced to nine months' imprisonment. In this, as in the other cases, the stomach and intestines bore evident marks of the power of gamboge and colocynth, when given on Morisonian principles—"the more the better."

The sentences of six and nine months' imprisonment, though far from severe, may appear sharp when compared with the fines inflicted on St. John Long and Salmon, and the utter impunity of so many of these manslayers by drugs. In France, however, quacks are far more roughly handled. Thus, in 1835, one Gardereau, a peasant of the department of the Indre and Loire, applied to a quack, named Gautier, who required eleven francs, to begin with, "in order to propitiate the evil one." Next day another visit was paid, when Gautier, having examined the urine and made sundry grimaces, mentioned a remedy which would cost thirty francs a quart. The money was paid and the potion delivered. It consisted of a many-coloured powder dissolved in a large quantity of water; on taking which the patient expired in excruciating agonies. Gautier was prosecuted, convicted of obtaining money under false pretences, and sentenced to imprisonment for five years. He appealed to the Court at Tours, but the sentence was confirmed.

A more curious instance happened in 1837. About the month of February three doctors left Paris on a me-

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dical tour, to hold medical consultations in the country, and sell their medicines. Hand-bills were posted on the walls of the various towns they meant to visit, setting forth the titles of the doctors and the virtues of their powders. Their tour soon came to an end, for their drugs were confiscated by the medical jury of Beaugency, as the doctors, not being druggists, had no right to sell physic; and the Court at Orleans went further, and passed sentence upon them as swindlers. The reasons given by the Court for this judgment are, that the accused called themselves members of a society (the Hippocratic Society) which had no existence; and by giving the name of a medical discovery to a mere mixture of jalap and sugar, and by guaranteeing a speedy and complete recovery to the most incurable patients, they excited the hopes of cure in the minds of persons whom they had attracted by fraudulent methods, and thus cheated them out of a part of their substance. In consequence they condemned M. Sebattier to two years' imprisonment and a fine of 2000 francs (80*l.*); Guerin to fifteen months' imprisonment and a fine of 1000 francs (40*l.*); and Neirac to a year's imprisonment and a fine of 600 francs (24*l.*). These unfortunate physicians appealed to the *Cour Royale*, at Orleans, which confirmed the judgment of the court below, but reduced each imprisonment to three months, and each fine to 300 francs (12*l.*). The mixture of jalap and sugar sold by these persons was called by them Sebattier's Mexican sugar, as jalap comes from Mexico; and the powders, sold by them at two francs each, were valued by the medical jury at one franc, and one franc and a half each, on the average.

In spite of the rigour with which, in some instances, quackery is treated in France, it is far from being extinguished in that great kingdom. Indeed we find that part of the time of the Academy of Medicine itself is taken up with ministerial letters concerning nostrums; for example, on one occasion (February 20, 1838) their opinion was desired upon a secret remedy proposed by the Sieur Boyer; and on the same day the Minister sent them, for the same purpose, the receipt of a *limonade rafraîchissante*, or refreshing lemonade.

Let us now mention a few miscellaneous cases where mischief has resulted from the ignorant administration of powerful medicines. A woman in Boston, in the United States, took, by the advice of a quack, some pills of elaterium and rhubarb, amounting to 2⅔ grains of the former and 16 of the latter. They produced incessant vomiting and purging, and she died in thirty-six hours after the last pill was taken. On dissection the stomach and bowels were found to be inflamed.* In this case it was the elaterium which destroyed her, the quantity of rhubarb being quite moderate.

In Coke's 'Reports' a case is mentioned of one Vaux, who recommended the use of cantharides to a man who died in consequence on the twenty-sixth day after taking them. Vaux was condemned to be hung, but we do not know whether the sentence was carried into effect.

Tobacco, when employed without discretion, has proved fatal. Beck mentions the case of a woman in London, who was persuaded by an empiric to use the infusion as a cure for worms. Soon after employing it as a clyster, she was seized with violent convulsions, and died in a quarter of an hour. Another, in Hamburg, did the same thing, and died in three years. Dr. Merriman, in his notes upon Underwood, mentions an instance where stupor, ending in death, occurred from the incautious manner in which a father washed the head of his child with a strong decoction of tobacco, for the cure of scalled head. Beck says that a quack was tried in London, in 1826, for administering an over-dose of foxglove. It produced vomiting, purging, lethargy, and convulsions, and the patient died in twenty-two hours. He adds, that the prisoner was acquitted on the ground that his advice had been asked. Let us then beware of asking the advice of such persons; let us trust for protection, not to the penal code, but to common sense.

Opiates—that is, medicines containing opium—are extremely dangerous remedies for young children; skilful practitioners prescribe opium or laudanum with reluctance when the patient is a baby, and the dose they give is very minute. But "fools rush in where angels fear to tread." Dalby's Carminative and Godfrey's Cordial are given in the nursery without scruple or hesitation. Dr. John Clarke, in his 'Commentaries on the Diseases of Children,' mentions a case where forty drops of Dalby's Carminative destroyed an infant. Dr. Merriman mentions two instances where children were destroyed by Godfrey's Cordial, and similar cases are, no doubt, more common than is generally believed. Parents and nurses, who would shrink from giving laudanum under its own name to a baby a month old, are deluded by the names of carminative, cordial, or soothing syrup, and extinguish with a heavy narcotic the slender flame of infant life!

What shall we say of the whole host of advertised medicines—of Barclay's Antibilious Pills, and Lady Webster's Dinner-Pills, Ching's Worm-Lozenges,* and anybody's cough-drops? Why, that in every case it would be better to take a remedy for the dose and preparation of which some man of sense and education is responsible. If the worm-lozenges should happen to be made with corrosive sublimate instead of calomel, if the drops contained arsenic instead of squill, the answer your surviving friends would get would be, that the patent-medicine dealer had sold the preparation for thirty years, and never before heard it complained of. Here, then, is one great disadvantage—the composition of the medicine is uncertain, and there is no security against the most extreme carelessness in the manufacture. Another disadvantage, and a thumping one, is that, in many cases (as we have seen in the Morisonian trials), the irregular practitioner is ignorant of the doses of powerful drugs; he has never heard of the maxim of Linnæus, that medicines and poisons do not differ in their qualities, but in their doses. Lastly, full-grown quacks seem ignorant of the fact which must be familiar to every druggist's apprentice of six months' standing, that diseases of the same name require very different treatment. Supposing Balatro's drops to benefit the languid cough of Smith, it does not in the least follow that they will do any good in the inflammatory cough of Jones; quite the reverse: they are made with squill, a heating substance, and will add fuel to the flame. Can anybody with a head on his shoulders believe that the headache of A, who got drunk yesterday; of B, who is suffering from want of food; of C, who is ill from watching and anxiety; and of D, who has had a dangerous fall, are all to be treated in the same way? Yet you must believe that, if you believe the advertisements. Or what do you think of a man being obliged to advertise continually that he can cure cancer without the knife? For our own parts, if we could do this, far from advertising, our only anxiety would be how to dispose of the superabundant patients desirous to see us, but whom it would be impossible for us to see; for, after all, it is useless to attempt to prescribe for more than eighty or a hundred patients a-day. There is another man who professes to cure the mad, and almost never fails, he says; he is not quite a dead shot, but has missed only twelve times in two thousand; so that he differs from

* Beck's 'Medical Jurisprudence,' 5th edition, p. 829.

* According to Gray's 'Supplement to the Pharmacopœia,' Barclay's antibilious pills are composed of extract of colocynth, resin of jalap, almond soap, guaiacum, tartar emetic, oil of juniper, oil of carraway, oil of rosemary, and syrup of buckthorn; Lady Webster's pills, of aloes, mastich, red roses, and syrup of wormwood; Ching's yellow worm lozenges, of calomel, white sugar, mucilage of gum tragacanth, and saffron; Ching's brown worm lozenges, of calomel, resinous extract of jalap, white sugar, and gum tragacanth.

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absolute and miraculous perfection by less than one per cent. Surely he and the cancer-curer ought to apply for a detachment of police to keep away the mob of patients from their doors. There are two secrets worth knowing about cancer; the one is, that in real cases of the disease quacks have sometimes destroyed life with arsenical pastes; the other is, that their reputation of curing it depends on the malady having been mistaken; the diamond ointment cured the cancer, because it existed only in imagination.

Let us, then, recommend our readers, if they are in want of medical advice, and are placed in such a position that it is impossible to procure that of a regular practitioner, rather to rely on the commonest druggist than to trust to newspaper advertisements or lying handbills. The druggist may err, but we know that the sellers of patent medicines are willing to deceive.

Two more observations and we have done. It has been the custom of late for the sellers of quack medicines to pay for the insertion of puffs in newspapers, and then to quote them, as if they were the unbiassed opinions of the editors. Lastly, country people should be informed that the stamp on quack medicines is not any proof of their merit; it does not show that any man in office thinks them excellent, or good, or bearable, but simply shows that Government is obliged to obtain an addition to the revenue by one of the least creditable of all methods.



[Portrait of Count Léon de Laborde in his travelling Costume. (Caramania.)]

*** The Office of the Society for the Diffusion of Useful Knowledge is at 59, Lincoln's Inn Fields.

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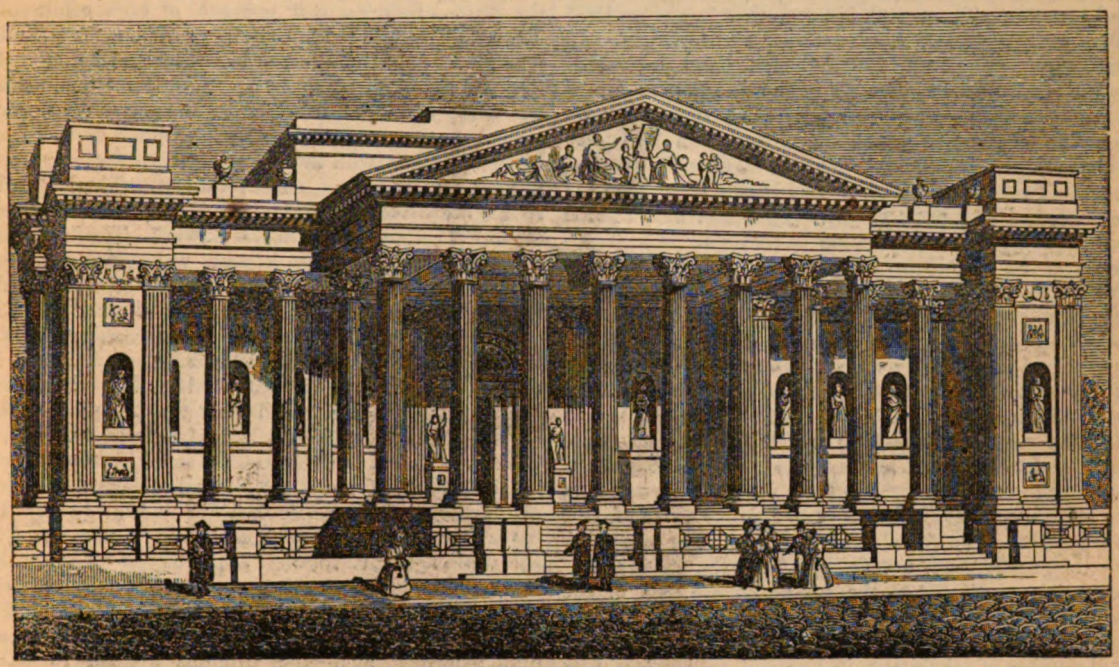
THE PENNY MAGAZINE

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433.] November 30 to December 31, 1838.

PUBLIC IMPROVEMENTS.—No. II., Provincial Towns.



[Fitzwilliam Museum, Cambridge.]

If we take the increase of the population at successive periods as one of the best means of estimating the industry and ingenuity of the English people, we find that the number of inhabitants in England and Wales is now six times as large as it was four centuries ago. At that period the exercise of the simplest arts sufficed for the support of the population. The increased security which the country began to enjoy after the reign of Henry VII. commenced, by encouraging industry, tended to this result. But without a continued series of improvements society cannot make progress, and the population must remain stationary. It would be no more possible with the means that existed in the fifteenth century to carry on all the vast enterprises which now exist, than it would have been possible at that period to have adopted many of our recent improvements. In 1377, the last year of the long reign of Edward III., according to the best materials which exist for such a calculation (an account of the produce of a capitation tax), the population of England and Wales amounted to 2,500,000. This was no more than 54 persons to each square mile. No part of England now contains a district so thinly populated. Westmoreland, with its tracts of waste land, has a population of 72 for each square mile of its area; the whole of Wales 120; the district of the Peak in Derbyshire 150; and Lincolnshire 120. But Wales has now its iron and coal mines; in the Peak there are cotton manufactories; and parts of Lincolnshire which were once almost constantly under water are now covered with crops of corn, and bear sheep and cattle on their rich pastures. Although in 1377 we may suppose that the want of security would have a tendency to augment the population of the towns, they contained a very insignificant number of inhabitants. The following calculation is made on the basis of the sum produced by the capitation tax already mentioned:—London (including, most probably, both Westminster and Southwark) had, as was stated in the last Supplement, a population of about 35,000 persons; York, nearly 11,000; Bristol, 9500; Plymouth and Coventry, about 7300 each; Norwich, 6000; Lincoln and Salisbury, about 5000 each; Lynn, about 4700; Colchester, 4400; Beverley and Newcastle-upon-Tyne, 4000 each; Canterbury, 3900; Bury St. Edmund's, 3700; Oxford, 3600; Gloucester, 3400; Leicester, Shrewsbury, and Yarmouth, about 3000 each; Hereford, 2800; Ely and Cambridge, 2500 each; Exeter, Worcester, and Hull, 2300 each; Ipswich, Northampton, Nottingham, and Winchester, between 2100 and 2300 each; Stamford, Newark, Wells, Ludlow, Southampton, Derby, Lichfield, Chichester, Boston, and Carlisle, between 1000 and 2000 each; and Rochester, Bath, and Dartmouth, between 700 and 900 each. "Not a single town is enumerated in the counties of Cornwall, Dorset, Berks, Buckingham, Hertford, Bedford, Huntingdon, Rutland, Lancaster, and Westmoreland; and no other, except London, in those of Middlesex and Surrey. Thus in the latter part of the fourteenth century the map of England scarcely exhibited thirty towns containing above 2000 inhabitants; and of these two only, besides the capital, contained a population of 10,000 each. The entire town population at this time may be set down at about

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170,000 persons, or little more than a fifteenth of the general population of the kingdom."* Manchester and its townships contained in 1831 a much larger number of inhabitants than that of all the towns in England in 1377 put together; and London, with the five towns of Manchester, Liverpool, Birmingham, Leeds, and Bristol, and their respective suburbs, have now more inhabitants than all England contained at the close of the fourteenth century. The improvements of the last four centuries may indeed rather be measured by the growth of the urban population than by the increase in the total number of inhabitants. For the augmentation of the former testifies to the increase of the classes who are engaged in a thousand different modes in contributing to the production of comforts and luxuries. The growth of towns, therefore, since 1377 offers striking evidence of national improvement. In 1833 the population of 237 municipal boroughs, visited by the Commissioners of Corporation Inquiry, contained a population of 2,028,513.† In 1832 there were 39 new boroughs, not including the metropolitan boroughs, admitted to the privilege of sending members to parliament. Thirty of these towns had each a population exceeding 18,000; their average population was 38,981, and their aggregate population 1,520,265. The population of 52 electoral cities, towns, and boroughs in England and Wales, amounted to 4,951,053 in 1831; and there are besides a number of other towns, having 10,000 inhabitants and under, which do not possess the privilege of returning members. In 1835-6 the number of registered parliamentary electors in the cities and towns of England was 301,966; and with the exception of some corporate places in which the freemen have votes, and two or three towns where every householder is admitted to the suffrage, all of these parliamentary electors are occupiers of houses *rated* at the yearly value of 10*l.* or upwards. The actual rent of their houses cannot be less than 6,000,000*l.* a year. In 1377 the urban population did not amount to the one-hundredth part of the population of England, whereas now it perhaps exceeds one-half of the total population. Nearly three times the total number of inhabitants in England in 1377 is now distributed in towns. In any country the more nearly the population is composed only of agriculturists, the further is it removed from the power of effecting grand and varied improvements. Its business is to raise food; and in proportion to its agricultural advancement is the increase of the non-agricultural class, to which all societies have been chiefly indebted for their elevation. Before this improvement takes place, few are in the enjoyment of leisure, but all are engaged in one description of employment; while in the latter state numbers of individuals are enabled to direct their talents to other pursuits. In England the latter class has been constantly increasing, and hence our pre-eminent position amongst civilized countries.

A glance at the provincial towns will afford ample proof that in England public improvements are not confined to the metropolis. Changes have taken place in them all which are in some respects more striking than those which the metropolis itself has witnessed. Their general municipal constitution claims attention first. The Royal Commission under which twenty gentlemen of high character proceeded, in 1833, to inquire into the state of the municipal corporations, presented a Report, signed by sixteen of them, in which they expressed their opinions that these institutions "must be thoroughly reformed" before they could become "useful and efficient instruments of local government." In 1835 the act "to provide for the Regulation of Municipal Corporations in England and Wales" was passed.‡ Instead of a self-elected municipal council, this act created a new constituency, consisting of all persons of full age occupying shops, warehouses, or houses, in each corporate borough. The ruling body is termed the council, and is composed of the councillors, the aldermen, and the mayor. The burgesses elect the councillors, and the latter elect the aldermen out of their own body. The mayor or head of the corporate body is elected by the council, also from their own body; so that every member finds his way into office by the direct influence of the popular voice, his station merely being determined by the members of the council. The appointment and superintendence of the police, the lighting and paving of streets, the local administration of justice, and other useful objects, are best carried into operation by a constituted body representing the wants, feelings, and interests of each community. The act above alluded to contains provisions for assigning a commission of the peace to boroughs, and borough justices are not required to have any property qualification by estate; and also entitles boroughs to separate courts of quarter-sessions. Courts for settling small debts already existed. These, with the power of levying a rate, are the highest prerogatives of self-government. The larger boroughs are divided into wards, and the burgesses residing in each elect councillors for their own ward. The borough of Liverpool is divided into sixteen wards, represented by 42 councillors and 16 aldermen. Some towns are divided into only two wards. The smallest number of which the ruling body in any borough is composed consists of the mayor, 4 aldermen, and 12 councillors, and such boroughs are not divided into wards. The burgesses of Bristol, Leeds, and Norwich elect 48 councillors; those of Hull, Leicester, Newcastle, and Portsmouth, 42; of Coventry, Derby, Exeter, Macclesfield, Plymouth, Preston, and York, 36; and the number of aldermen in each of the above places varies from 12 to 16. In the 178 boroughs whose municipal constitution was revised by 5 and 6 Will. IV., c. 76, there are 178 chief officers, called mayors, bailiffs, or portreeves, as the case may be, 1074 aldermen, and 3184 councillors; making a total of 4436 individuals. The career thus opened to intelligent and public-spirited men—the stimulus applied to public virtue—the opportunities of good presented—the habits and capacity for business created;—these render the Municipal Reform Act one of the most valuable and essential renovations and improvements of the age. Any one who has watched with attention the proceedings of the new municipal bodies will acknowledge that, generally speaking, their acts are characterized by good sense and good feeling. The large towns of Manchester, Birmingham, and Bolton, have just been incorporated under the act, and other towns may obtain a charter of incorporation by petition. At Sheffield neither the party for nor that against a charter of incorporation has such a majority as to allow of the privilege being granted. In large towns which are not incorporated various expedients are resorted to for the purpose of securing the objects of municipal government. There are Commissioners for Paving, for Lighting, for General Improvements, for Widening Streets, and a variety of other objects. The authority under which they act is a General Improvement Act, or Local Police Act, or sometimes there are several acts constituting each commission. Under a single act, a number of commissioners are appointed, who are divided into committees, each of which takes in hand a special department of municipal business, its proceedings being under the general control of the municipal body. But it may be stated that under this form of municipal government it usually happens that there is a constant tendency towards the management of local business getting into the hands of a small knot of individuals, while the majority keep aloof. But when the public voice calls forth the most eligible members from the mass of any community, and places under their control all the most important interests of a public nature, their proceedings become more

* 'Pictorial History of England,' vol. ii., book v., chap. vii.; "History of the Condition of the People," p. 268-9.
† 'Report of Commissioners,' 1835.
‡ 5 and 6 Will. IV., c. 76.

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imposing and excite more general attention. A public body, consisting of from forty to sixty individuals, annually recruited by elections, in which the vote of nearly every householder has its influence, keeps up a degree of public spirit which is in the highest degree beneficial to the community. The municipal corporations are in fact "the mirror of the constitution." Of all the changes which have been made of late years, it is impossible not to rank very highly the *improvement of municipal government*.

The *Supply of Water* would be an object of attention in towns long before the paving of streets was considered necessary. Water must have been procured by artificial means wherever it did not flow in some natural channel; and in the first instance it must have been drawn from wells. To raise water by more complicated machinery was a later improvement; and this was succeeded by laying pipes or ducts to distribute it into different parts of the town. Then came the present mode of raising water by still more ingenious means to a level from which it may be conducted into dwelling-houses, and a dressing-room is supplied as easily as the ground-floor. A deficient supply of water is more strongly indicative of the backward state of a town than perhaps any other circumstance; for, with proper energy, the evil may always be remedied. At Leeds waterworks have existed since 1694, and steps have been recently taken for improving the supply. At Liverpool an attempt was made in 1709 to bring water into the town in wooden troughs, but the project failed; and it was not until the year 1800 that a full supply was obtained through the exertions of two separate companies. The supply of water not being generally dependent, to so great an extent, upon co-operation, there are many towns well paved and lighted which are without public waterworks.

In the sixteenth century several local acts were obtained for *Paving the Streets* of provincial towns; but until the following century the applications to the legislature for acts of this description were but few. The streets of every market-town of any consideration are now pitched, and the pathways flagged or more carefully pitched than the carriage-way. However, not only in the largest provincial towns, but in many parts of the metropolis, the mode of pitching the carriage-way seems to be unscientific; constant repairs are rendered necessary, and a heavy expenditure of local rates is the result. The sewerage is also frequently defective, and this may be said of many towns of the first class.

The present mode of *Lighting Streets* is one of the greatest public improvements of modern times. The effect of lighting every dark alley with a brilliant flame of gas has given security to property, and driven vice and immorality from the public street into greater obscurity. The progress was, from candles fixed in lanthorns and hung at the door of each householder, to oil-lamps scattered at a great distance from each other, and which only made the darkness more visible. One of the duties of the wardmote inquest of the city of London in 1650 was "to enquire if any neglecteth to hang a lanthorn at his door with a candle therein burning, after the usage of the season of the year appointed." In 1690 this order was renewed. Housekeepers were to keep a lanthorn lighted from dark till twelve o'clock. At this period lamps with cotton wicks were also used in the public streets. When the city of London was first lighted by contractors, those householders who hung out a lanthorn and candle were exempted from contributing to the expense of the public lamps. In 1736 the city authorities were compelled to apply for an act to enable them to light the city in a better manner. Other places can scarcely be expected to have been in advance of the metropolis. Birmingham was lighted for the first time in 1733 with 700 oil lamps. In 1798 Boulton and Watt introduced gas into their workshops at Soho, and their example was soon followed in the factories in the large manufacturing towns. The first application of gas to lighting the public streets took place in 1807, and Pall-Mall was for several years the only part of London which was thus illuminated. Ten years afterwards the improvement had found its way into several of the large towns, and the old oil lamps were laid aside. In 1817 gas-works were erected at Manchester by the Commissioners of Police. In 1818 a company was incorporated for lighting Liverpool with gas. In 1818 subscriptions were entered into for lighting Leeds with gas; and in 1819 a gas company was established at Bristol. Until the introduction of gas many small towns had never been lighted at all; but within the last twenty years, first the great towns, then those of the second and third class, and lastly, towns with a population of two or three thousand, have been lighted with coal-gas. Many towns are now supplied with gas by two or more separate companies. During the present autumn Kirkwall in the Orkneys has been lighted with gas, and thus an improvement involving a considerable outlay of capital, and the constant superintendence of some person possessing a certain extent of scientific acquirements, and which depends upon public spirit for its support, travels from the centre to the remotest extremities of the empire.

The following is a classification of the Improvement Bills which have been passed in the ten years from 1829 to 1838 inclusive. Under the head 'General Improvements' are included acts for paving, cleansing, lighting, and watching towns; and under that of 'Municipal Regulation' are comprised acts for improving local courts, and for regulating markets, fairs, and other local matters.

General Improvement . . .	79
Bridges, County-halls, Market-places, Churches, Cemeteries, &c. . .	134
*Gas and Water works . . .	72
Municipal Regulation . . .	87
Total . . .	372

If the provincial organization were rendered still more perfect, there is reason to believe that the imperial legislature might, under some regulations, be relieved from the consideration of the details involved in these local acts.

In 1818 an act was passed,† commonly known by the name of the Million Act, as it placed that sum in the hands of commissioners for the purpose of building *New Churches*. Under this act 225 churches and episcopal chapels have been erected. Besides these a number of churches have been erected with the funds arising from First Fruits and Tenths, also by diocesan and other church-building societies, and by private munificence. A society at Birmingham has raised 12,000*l.* for this object, and its funds are still increasing. At Leeds large sums have been raised for a similar purpose, and in a small country town about 1200*l.* has been raised by a bazaar to build a new church. Similar exertions have been made, or are at present making, in all parts of the country. A drawback of the duty is allowed on building materials employed in churches and episcopal chapels; and since 1817 the sum of 170,561*l.* has been allowed on 609 new or enlarged edifices. Most of the large towns contain several new churches, built within the last twenty years; and in smaller towns there is at least one. In the last ten years 56 new churches have been consecrated in the diocese of Winchester, and between 200 and 300 churches have been enlarged or improved. The present Bishop of London, while Bishop of Chester, consecrated 27 churches in that diocese from the year 1824 to 1828;

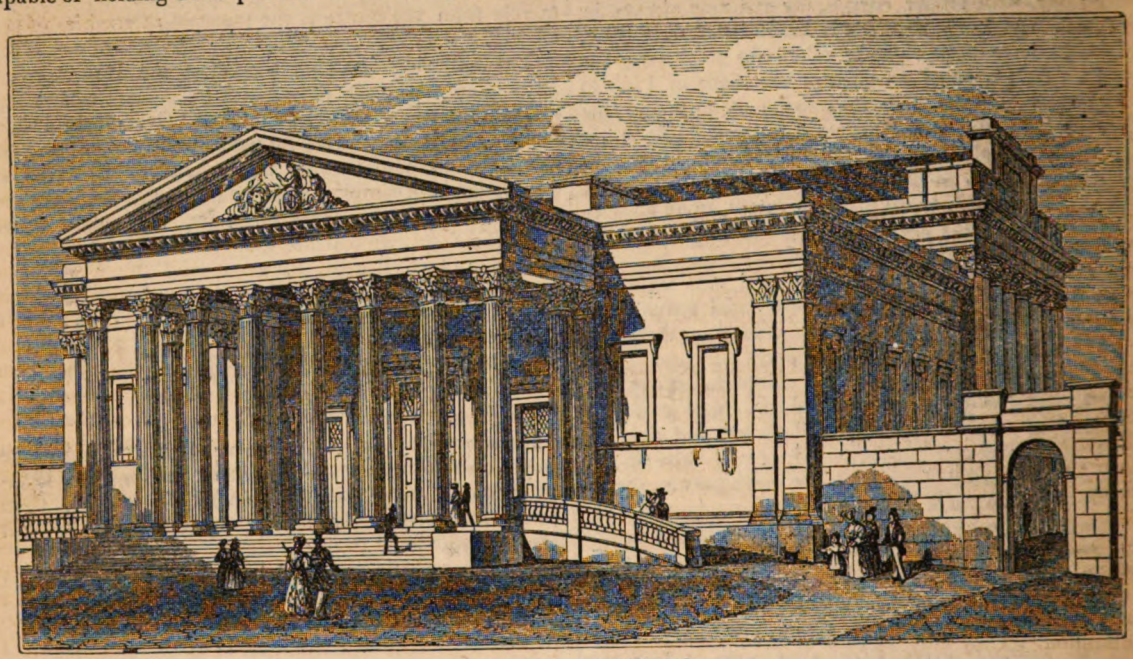
* Many of the Acts for General Improvement enable municipal bodies to levy water and gas rates.

† 58 Geo. III., c. 45.

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and since his appointment to the see of London, in the latter year, he has consecrated 57 churches, and 26 others are now in progress. The Bishop of Chester, during the ten years of his episcopate, has consecrated 103 churches; and for the last three years the sum employed in building new churches in his diocese has averaged 50,000*l.* a year. We give a specimen of one of the new churches in page 506. It is in the style of the third period of pointed architecture, and cost 7600*l.*, of which 2000*l.* was raised by the inhabitants of Yarmouth and the neighbourhood. With a love for ancient remains which is highly creditable, several of our most interesting ecclesiastical structures have been renovated and restored. The Abbey Church at Bath, a view of which is given in page 506, is an example. There are about 12,000 churches and episcopal chapels in England, and the number of places of worship belonging to other religious denominations is about 9000. The great majority of the latter have been erected within the present century; the number of chapels in towns of the first class being generally from thirty to forty; and in a town containing a population of 10,000 there will usually be five or six chapels. Some of the large chapels are capable of holding 3000 persons. But the population has increased so rapidly, that the number of religious edifices is still far from having been proportionately extended. Additional accommodation has been provided in churches since 1818 for about 600,000 persons; but in the dioceses of Chester, and Lichfield and Coventry, and in the province of York, there are districts containing a population of 1,500,000, in which church accommodation exists for only 174,000, being in some instances only sufficient for one-thirtieth of the population.

All the old moot-halls and town-halls in nearly every large town have disappeared within the last few years, and have been replaced by new *Municipal Buildings*, some of which are on a really splendid scale. The cost of erecting the new Town-Hall at Manchester has been 50,000*l.* The Town-Hall at Birmingham is a magnificent edifice of the Corinthian order: an engraving and description of this building will be found in the 'Penny Magazine,' No. 142. The interior length of the hall is 140 feet, width 65 feet, and height 65 feet. In other places, the chief municipal edifice is on a proportionate scale. The design of other recently erected public buildings is generally of a superior character. These are exchange or commercial rooms, and banks, literary institutions, museums, and schools, theatres, and concert

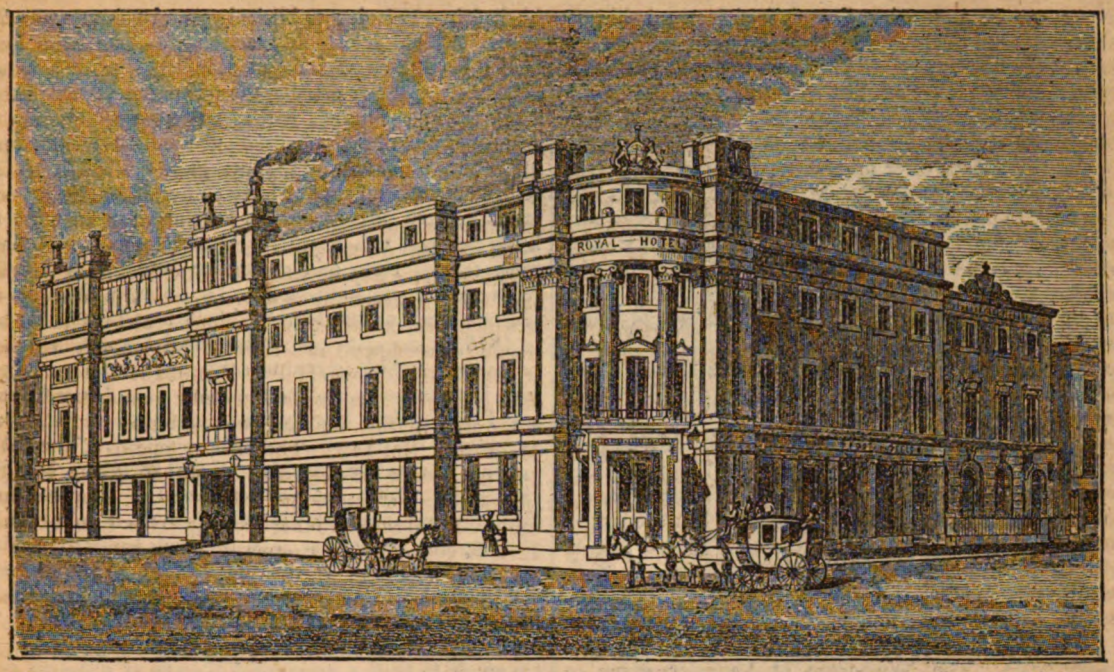


[Victoria Rooms, Bristol.]

and assembly rooms, news-rooms and libraries, and infirmaries, hospitals and asylums. In nearly every instance all the buildings for these various purposes are of recent date; a town-hall, theatre, and assembly-room having previously been almost the only public edifices which the habits and manners of the provincial towns demanded. The *variety* of objects which the public buildings in these towns are now intended to comprise is in itself an indication of improvement. The Victoria Rooms, Bristol, and the New Buildings, Derby (in this and the following pages), are the latest examples of improvements of this class which are taking place in the provincial towns. The Bristol rooms contain accommodation for business and festivity. The columns of the Corinthian portico are 30 feet high, and the grand hall is 117 feet long, 55 feet wide, and 48 feet high, being more spacious than Freemason's Hall, London, which is only 92 feet by 43 feet. The new buildings, Derby, comprise the post-office, a news-room and reading-room, a museum, and music-room, which latter is 68 feet by 30 feet. The building presents two façades, one of 98 feet and the other of 185 feet. The sculptures represent a Greek procession. The extensive and splendid market accommodation in Liverpool and Newcastle is superior to that of the metropolis, and the buildings are of unrivalled proportions; those of Birmingham are also very fine.

For *Educational* purposes there are the Proprietary and Collegiate Schools, which have all been founded within the last ten years. The College at Bristol, founded in 1830 by a proprietary body, is intended to afford a classical and scientific education to the youth of the town, without rendering it necessary for them to quit their homes. A junior department is annexed to the institution. The Wakefield or West-Riding Proprietary School, containing accommodation for 100 boarders, and the principal and under masters, was opened in August, 1834, and is at present attended by upwards of 200 pupils. At Hull there are two proprietary schools, the Hull College, erected chiefly by the Dissenters, and the Kingston College by members of the Established Church. They are each attended by upwards of 100 pupils, and both have preparatory schools in connexion with them. At Sheffield there are two proprietary schools, one intended for youths whose parents belong to the Church of Eng-

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[New Buildings, Derby.]

land, and the other, which is under the superintendence of Conference, has been founded by the Wesleyan Methodists. The proprietors of the former (the Collegiate School) have already established four exhibitions of 25*l.* each, tenable for four years, for boys going from the school to the Universities of Oxford and Cambridge, and an annual prize of 25*l.* is given to the first boy of his year who is not proceeding to a university. At Huddersfield there are two proprietary schools, and at Leicester two, one at each place established by Churchmen and one chiefly by Dissenters. The Leicester and Leicestershire School, belonging to the Dissenters, is remarkable for a bold Tuscan portico, and the Collegiate School is in the Tudor style. They are each designed for 300 boys, and have spacious residences for the masters attached to them. Since the spirited restoration of the Grammar School of King Edward VI., at Birmingham, it may be classed with these recent institutions. There are eleven proprietary schools in connexion with King's College, London. These schools will doubtless be the means of effecting improvements in the common system of boarding-school education. They may be said to have originated out of the excitement which led to the establishment of the London University College and King's College. The public establishments for the education of the deaf and dumb, and for the blind, are all of recent existence. For the deaf and dumb the first school was opened in London in 1792, and was followed by the establishment of similar schools at Birmingham in 1814, at Manchester in 1824, Liverpool in 1825, Exeter in 1827, and Doncaster (for Yorkshire and Lincolnshire) in 1829. The first school for the blind in England was established at Liverpool in 1791. An asylum for the blind was formed at Bristol in 1793, a school for the indigent blind in London, in 1799, a hospital and school for the indigent blind at Norwich in 1805, the Yorkshire Asylum for the Blind in 1835, and the Manchester Asylum for the Blind in the same year. For the latter establishment the sum of 10,000*l.* was raised by donations and subscriptions, in addition to a bequest of 20,000*l.* which had been previously made. Sunday-schools, national and Lancasterian schools, and infant-schools, especially the latter, mark the progressive course of opinion on the subject of education.

The establishment of *Provincial Schools of Medicine* has proved a most successful attempt to render the large provincial towns centres of professional knowledge. At these institutions lectures are delivered on anatomy, physiology and pathology, on the principles and practice of medicine and surgery, and on botany, chemistry, and forensic medicine. There are also anatomical demonstrations and clinical lectures on medical and surgical cases. The College of Surgeons and the Apothecaries' Company are responsible for the competency of the lecturers. An attendance upon the lectures diminishes the time which a medical student is required to spend at the hospitals in London; the certificate which he brings with him from the provincial school conferring the same qualifications for examination as certificates from the medical schools of the metropolis. Instead of coming up raw and uninstructed in the theory of his profession, the student is at once placed in a situation which enables him to derive the greatest advantage in the larger sphere which the medical schools of London open to him. The character of the profession in the towns in which recognised schools of medicine exist has been raised, and they present an admirable opportunity to its members to increase their usefulness and to stimulate their talents. The first provincial school of medicine and surgery was established at Manchester in 1825. There are now similar schools at Birmingham, Bristol, Leeds, Sheffield, Hull, Nottingham, Newcastle, and Liverpool. Connected with them are libraries and medico-chirurgical societies for students, and museums of natural and morbid structure. In page 508 we have given a view of the Medical Institution at Liverpool. The style is plain Grecian-Ionic: it contains a lecture-room, committee-room, and library, and three rooms appropriated as a museum.

Within a very recent date Public or Subscription *Libraries and News-Rooms* were the only institutions which the provincial towns possessed that could be said to have been directly connected with intellectual objects. Some of the libraries in the large towns now contain very valuable collections of books. The Leeds Public Library was founded in 1768, on the recommendation of Dr. Priestley. At Birmingham the old library contains 17,000 volumes, and is supported by about 600 annual subscribers at 1*l.* each, and the new library has 4000 volumes, and 360 annual subscribers. The Bristol library, established in 1772, contains about 19,000 volumes, having been assisted with a gift of 2000 volumes by the city; it is supported by about 300 annual sub-

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scribers, at 1*l.* 11*s.* 6*d.* each. The Liverpool library was established in 1770; and the Manchester library, which possesses above 16,000 volumes, in 1765. A second library was established in 1792. The Portico, in the same place, combines the advantages of a news-room and library, and was erected in 1805 at a cost of 7000*l.* Within the last three or four years, a library of foreign works has been established at Manchester. There is also a law library; and the professional gentlemen at Bristol and several other places enjoy the advantages of a similar institution. In many of the smaller towns public libraries were established as early as at Leeds and other large places; but scarcely any of them were commenced before the reign of George III. The publications which have appeared under the superintendence of the Record Commissioners are frequently to be found in the libraries of very small towns, having been presented by the government. In a community which is not sufficiently large to pay the rent of rooms and the salary of a librarian, there are book societies: new works, after circulating a certain time, are divided amongst the members. In the largest towns there are usually two or three news-rooms, in each of which from 300 to 600 or 700 newspapers per week are received, including from 30 to 100 copies of the London daily papers; and there is perhaps not a town of 2000 inhabitants which has not its news-room on a smaller scale. The News-room at Leicester, given in page 508, displays the rich Ionic style. It contains a library, news-room, reading-room for periodicals, and apartments for the librarian. The library is 60 feet long and 30 wide, and it is 30 feet high, or 41 feet to the lantern by which it is lighted.



[New Church, Yarmouth.]

It is only within the last twenty years, with two or three exceptions, that institutions for promoting *supplementary education* have been established, such as literary and philosophical societies, lyceums, and other associations connected with science, literature, and art. The Manchester Literary and Philosophical Society, established in 1781, has published several volumes of 'Memoirs,' which are highly esteemed. The Manchester Royal Institution was founded in 1823, with a view of diffusing a taste for art, by the formation of a gallery of sculpture and painting, and of encouraging literary and scientific pursuits by facilitating the delivery of courses of lectures: the hall of the institution cost 32,000*l.* The Athenæum at Manchester is an edifice of still more recent erection, from designs by Mr. C. Barry; it contains two lecture-rooms, one of which can accommodate 600 persons, several class and committee rooms, also a coffee-room and a smoking-room. In 1812, a literary and philosophical society was established at Liverpool; and in 1817, at the same place, the Royal Institution was incorporated, which contains a library, museum, laboratory, lecture-rooms, and news-room. The Leeds Literary and Philosophical Society was established in 1820, and at present consists of about 300 members. The Leeds Literary Institution, consisting of 500 members, has been established within the last four years. It possesses a large reading-room, an extensive library, a collection of philosophical apparatus, and frequent lectures are delivered. At Bristol an institution of similar character was opened in 1823, which contains a reading-room, library, and a very interesting museum. The smaller towns have now their lyceums, and in those which are too small to have a permanent literary or scientific association lectures are frequently delivered. In most instances in which societies of this class have existed for three or four years, even in towns of small size, they have been enabled to erect a building for their accommodation, which has cost from 1200*l.* to 2000*l.* The Cambridge Fitzwilliam Museum (page 501), for the reception of books and works of art, may be regarded as a specimen of such buildings as the Manchester Institution. One of the most valuable class of institutions which has arisen within the last few years have been the Mechanics' Institutes, Mechanics' and Apprentices' Libraries, and other establishments for affording instruction and intellectual advantages to the working classes. An Artisans' Library was established at Birmingham at the commencement of the present century; but until 1820, or two or three years afterwards, it stood alone. In 1822 a Mechanics' and Apprentices' Library was established at Liverpool, by Mr. Egerton Smith; and in 1824 several benevolent ladies of the same place formed a library for female apprentices and young women who maintain



[Abbey Church, Bath—Restored.]

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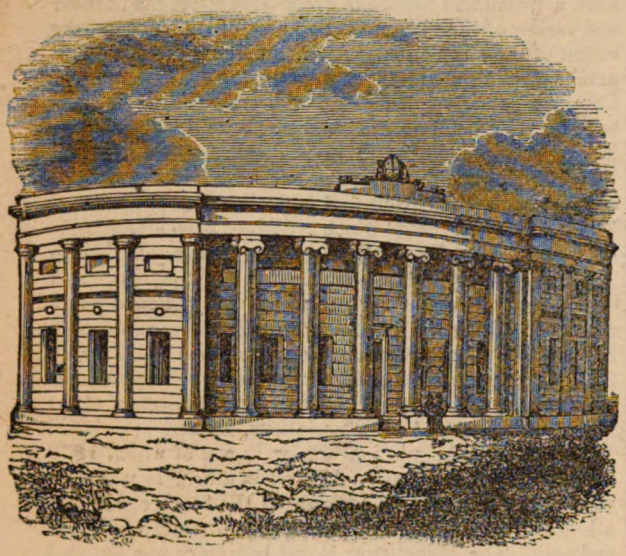
themselves. The Bristol Mechanics' Institute was founded in 1823; that of Manchester in 1824.

In the Mechanics' Institutes teachers are paid to give instruction in the evenings in elementary education and the arts of design, and scientific and general information is communicated in lectures. At the Manchester Institute above 200*l.* is paid yearly to teachers, and the annual expense of the lecture department is from 250*l.* to 300*l.*, 80 or 90 lectures being given in the course of a year. From 250*l.* to 300*l.* is expended in the purchase of books; and the number of books issued for perusal exceeds 40,000 a year. Attached to the Mechanics' Institutes of Liverpool and Manchester there are excellent day-schools, that at Manchester being attended by above 300 children, many of whose parents are members of the Institute. Under one form or other institutions of this class are to be found in every market-town excepting those of the smallest class, and they have been established in many of the latter. In 1837 thirteen of the Mechanics' Institutes of the West Riding of Yorkshire were formed into a union to embrace the following objects:—1st, the interchange of opinion and advice on the local management of Mechanics' Institutes, and the consequent rapid diffusion of improved methods; and 2nd, the procuring of first-rate lectures on scientific subjects, systematically arranged, and subordinate to each other, so as to present a connected and comprehensive view of each, at a much lower pecuniary cost than can be done by isolated engagements. This admirable plan originated with Mr. C. Baker, of Doncaster, and was brought forward at Leeds by Mr. E. Baines, jun. There is no doubt of its working well in all populous districts. As indicative of the *Improvement of the Public Taste* in the provinces, we may allude to the periodical exhibitions of pictures at Manchester, Liverpool, Birmingham, Leeds, Bristol, and Newcastle; the splendid musical festivals of York, Manchester, Birmingham, Gloucester, and several other large towns, and the formation of botanic and horticultural gardens and cemeteries. At Liverpool a permanent gallery of modern art is likely to be immediately commenced, and at York there is to be a public academy for the study of the elegant and useful arts. The receipts at the musical festivals in some of the above places often exceed 20,000*l.*, which, after the payment of expenses, is distributed to the principal local charities. A botanic garden, occupying five acres, was formed at Hull in 1811, and there are now public gardens at Liverpool, Birmingham, Sheffield, and several other places. They usually originate in a company of shareholders, and do not prove a bad investment. The exhibitions of fruit and flowers by the Horticultural Societies established in nearly every town in England are most agreeable proofs of the beneficial direction of the public taste. The Sheffield Horticultural Society has awarded prizes of the value of 150*l.* at one of its exhibitions: they consisted of silver cups of the value of 5*l.*, 10*l.*, and 15*l.*, and smaller prizes in money, and the competition was opened to exhibitors from any part of the country. At Liverpool there are zoological gardens, and zoological and botanical gardens are at present forming at Leeds, for which purpose a capital of 20,000*l.* has been raised, in shares of 10*l.* each. The Natural History Societies of Manchester, Newcastle, and several other places, with their interesting museums, may also here be mentioned as highly creditable to the intelligence of the communities by which they are supported. The first provincial cemetery, on a plan resembling that of Père la Chaise, was formed at Liverpool, which has now two cemeteries, and the practice of burying the dead in the midst of a crowded population promises to become extinct. At Leeds there is a cemetery which is laid out in walks and grassy lawns, and shaded with ornamental trees and shrubs. In the centre of the cemetery there is an elegant edifice in which the service for the dead is performed. The area of the cemetery is ten acres, and there is space for 14,000 graves. At Sheffield there is also a cemetery, which is beautifully laid out, and commands a charming prospect. The lowest price for a single interment is 8*s.* There are cemeteries at Birmingham, York, Stockport, Wolverhampton, and other large towns.

The buildings and associations for *Charitable* purposes form a prominent feature in every large town, the number and variety of their objects depending, of course, upon the extent of the population. At Birmingham there is a General Hospital, a Magdalen Institution, a Society for the Suppression of Mendicity, and several other similar institutions. At Bristol an infirmary was established in 1735; it can accommodate 200 in-patients, and about 1600 patients of this class are admitted annually, the average number of out-patients being 5000: the annual income is 7000*l.* a-year, 2200*l.* of which is derived from annual subscriptions. The Bristol General Hospital, established in 1832, is principally remarkable for its stipendiary and self-supporting dispensary, to which the patients pay a small contribution. The Dispensary, another institution, has stations at the two opposite extremities of the town: 2700 patients and 500 midwifery cases are relieved by this institution, which is supported by an expenditure of about 1000*l.* a-year, raised in subscriptions. There are also in Bristol two ophthalmic infirmaries, in one of which 1300 cases are treated annually. At Hull an infirmary was established in 1782, and a dispensary in 1814: there are also a lunatic asylum and a dispensary for diseases of the ear and eye. The Manchester Royal Infirmary was founded in 1752; the House of Recovery, or Fever Hospital, in 1796; the Lying-in Hospital in 1790; an institution for the cure of diseases of the eye in 1815, in which about 1200 cases are treated annually; a Lock hospital in 1819; and a female penitentiary in 1822. There are besides many minor institutions of a charitable nature. An infirmary was opened at Liverpool so early as 1749; a dispensary in 1778; a second infirmary was commenced in 1820, and a second dispensary in 1822; a hospital for seamen was established in 1752; a lunatic asylum in 1792; a lying-in charity in 1796; a house of recovery for fever patients in 1806; a female penitentiary in 1809; and there are two ophthalmic infirmaries, besides other medical charities. In 1819 a charitable institution house was built at Liverpool, which contains a hall and rooms for the purpose of accommodating committees and public meetings. At Leeds an infirmary was established in 1767, which derives about 2500*l.* a-year from annual subscriptions, the remainder of its income arising from investments. There is also at Leeds a house of recovery for fever patients, an eye and ear dispensary, and a lying-in hospital. About 11,000*l.* a year is distributed in the principal charities, and large sums are devoted to the maintenance of minor charities. The number of out-patients at the Manchester Infirmary averages about 19,000 a year, and of in-patients about 1900; the proportion in each case considerably exceeding that of any other provincial institution of the same class. At the Leeds Infirmary the number of out-patients averages 2500, and of in-patients 1400. At the Birmingham Infirmary there are about 2400 out and about 1600 in patients annually; and at Sheffield about 1600 out and 900 in patients. At the Lying-in Hospital at Manchester 4570 midwifery cases have been attended in a year; and many persons were improperly deriving an advantage from the institution who were perfectly able to pay for medical aid. On an officer being appointed to investigate the necessities of each case, their number was reduced above one thousand in the following year. It is believed that a similar degree of vigilance in many other charitable institutions would be attended with advantage. Subscribers to a public charity, though they may reside at a considerable distance from the institution, are enabled to recommend

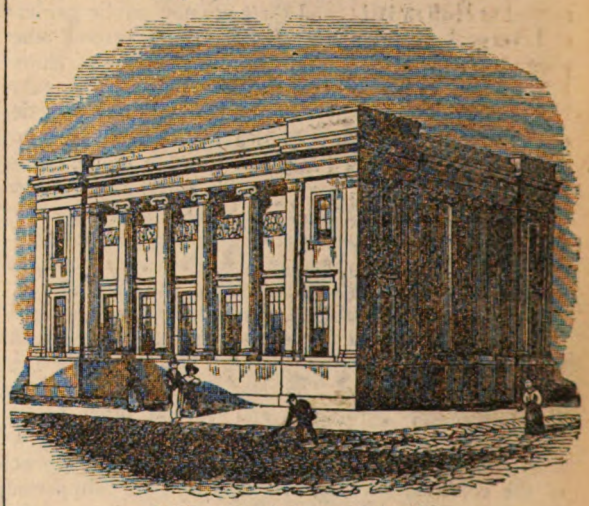
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patients; and thus the advantages of such institutions are widely diffused. In the West Riding of Yorkshire there are five large infirmaries; but infirmaries and hospitals were at first generally confined to the county-town. In towns which are not large enough to support an infirmary there is generally a dispensary established; the difference between the two institutions being that the latter do not afford accommodation for in-patients.



[News-Room, Leicester.]

We have thus taken a rapid notice of improvements of a public nature which have been effected in the provincial towns. In giving the date at which some of these improvements were introduced, an idea may be formed of the general progress in towns of smaller size. The changes which have taken place within the last twenty years greatly outnumber, in importance and variety, those of any period of our history of far greater duration. Eighty years ago scarcely a public library was to be found in any provincial town for the use of any class, while now the apprentices of artisans need not be destitute of an agreeable resource in books. The means of advancement everywhere abound—the seeds of beneficial progress have been plentifully sown, and it is the fault of individuals if they do not bear good fruit. The physical changes are not less striking than those which the moral world presents. In England one improvement has succeeded another so rapidly, that it would seem, on a hasty glance, as if we should at length find ourselves at that point in which little remains to be done. An American visiting England for the first time, though coming from a country in which unexampled efforts are made to subdue physical nature to the power of man, is struck by the different aspect of a country in which improvements have been making progress for many centuries. The neat foot-paths by the road-side and across fields, and many other similar marks of minute care, which arrest his attention, are the consequences of England having for a great length of time been peopled up to its then existing resources. It is true that by the labour of one generation after another the entire face of the country has been changed, and every part of its surface rendered tributary to our use; but though possessing a larger relative population than other European countries, and that population enjoying the necessaries of life in greater abundance than the inhabitants of those countries, happily no diminished energy in the character of the people is a consequence of this position. No one dreams that the work of improvement is to stand still; but every possible effort is made to extend it under every form which promises to secure the advantage or promote the happiness of the community. An observant writer says:—"It would be hard to name a single instance of the wealth of England which does not exhibit, at this present time, a tendency to improvement. Though of late years the roads of England have been reckoned the best in the world, yet on every great road, and many cross-roads, some striking improvement is now taking place. Though the carriage and foot pavements of English towns have long been celebrated as perfect, yet these are, as well in country towns as in London, in the course of being greatly improved. The number of good houses in London, and of people who can afford to keep a carriage, astonishes a foreigner; yet in every direction new houses of this class are in the course of being built; and no sooner are a hundred of them finished, than they are all occupied and each of them has a carriage at the door. In ninety-nine out of a hundred old streets, all over England, you will find new houses greatly superior to those by their side. The difference in point of utility and appearance between old houses which are pulled down in London and those which take their place is, universally, almost as great as the difference between the old and new London bridges; a difference, which is striking to the English themselves, and is grateful even to such of them as, hating innovation, love to talk of the wisdom of their ancestors. But a catalogue of those objects which exhibit the actual progress of improvement in England would comprise nearly all that is necessary, useful, or agreeable to Englishmen: it would include every useful or ornamental art, from the great arts of printing, architecture, engineering, painting and sculpture, down to the lowest occupation of human industry; besides the whole list of sciences, from the most important, such as chemistry, medicine, and government, down to the meanest department of human knowledge. In England, improvement is everywhere. In England, advancement from good to better is a universal principle. Where all this will end, who shall venture to predict? Sober imaginations are confounded by observing the very rapid progress which wealthy and civilized England is at this time making in wealth and civilization."



[Medical Institution, Liverpool.]

END OF VOLUME THE SEVENTH.

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